

Appendix. Ethnographic Sources

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Contents

1	Africa	1
1.1	Central Africa	1
1.2	Southern Africa	2
1.3	Western Africa	2
2	Asia	11
2.1	East Asia	11
2.2	North Asia	12
2.3	South Asia	13
2.4	Southeast Asia	13
3	Middle America and the Caribbean	15
3.1	Central Mexico	15
4	North America	20
4.1	Arctic and Subarctic	20

1 Africa

1.1 Central Africa

1.1.1 Barundi

Meyer, H., & Handzik, H. (1916). The Barundi: an ethnological study of German East Africa. Ott Spamer. p139. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fo58-001>

“**The eldest son also inherits** the religious and professional attributes and **skills of his father**. If the father was a priest (kiranga), sorcerer, medicine man (umufumu), or **blacksmith** (umususi), etc., the eldest son becomes — or remains — in the same position or profession by inheriting from

his father the insignia and tools, **in addition to the expert training**. Thus, certain professions remain the prerogative of certain families. If the mother is an expert of some sort, she will pass on her skills to her eldest daughter.”

1.2 Southern Africa

1.2.1 Tanala

Linton, R. (1933). The Tanala, a hill tribe of Madagascar. In Publication 317. Anthropological series (Vol. xxii, p. 334). [s.n.]. p256-258. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fy08-001>

“While I was in Ambohimanga the boys frequently brought me small models of traps which they had made. These were offered for sale and I doubt whether such models were used in their own play. **They begin to make real traps for small birds and mammals at a very early age**. Tanala toys seem to be characterized by an almost complete absence of replicas of things used by adults. I never saw any small figures of cattle or chickens, although such playthings are very common among the plateau tribes, or any miniature tools or utensils. The girls did not even have dolls.”

1.2.2 Tonga

Colson, E., & for Social Research, U. of Zambia. I. (1958). Marriage & the family among Plateau Tonga of Northern Rhodesia. Manchester University Press. p262-263. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fq12-015>

“Today with the scarcity of game throughout most of the area, few receive training in hunting or fishing. **Other learning**, such as skill in constructing dwellings and granaries and in **making various tools or utensils, is fitted into the daily round and extends throughout childhood**, since it does not clash with herding duties as does field work.”

1.3 Western Africa

1.3.1 Akan

Rattray, R. S. (Robert Sutherland). 1927. “Religion and Art in Ashanti.” In . Oxford, England: Clarendon Press. p271-272. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fe12-002>.

“In Ashanti, a generation or so ago, every stool in use had its own particular significance and its own special name which denoted the sex, or social status, or clan of the owner. The village of Afwia, a few miles from Coomassie, was the centre, in olden days, of the stool-carving industry. **Sons and sisters’ sons were equally allowed to learn the art of carving, from father or uncle respectively.** Many of the stools shown here were the ‘copyright’ of the Ashanti king, and might not, on any account, be sold in the open market; 2 they were first given to the king, who would then present them to chiefs whom he wished to honour. **A woman might not carve a stool—because of the ban against menstruation.** A woman in this state was formerly not even allowed to approach wood-carvers while at work, on pain of death or of a heavy fine. This fine was to pay for sacrifices to be made upon the ancestral stools of the dead kings, and also upon the wood-carver’s tools. If any wood-carver’s wife was unfaithful to her husband, and the latter, being unaware of this, went to work, then ‘his tools would cut him severely’. A wood-carver might not go to work leaving unsettled any quarrel or grievance with his parents.”

1.3.2 Igbo

Ottenberg, S. (1975). Masked rituals of Afikpo, the context of an African art. In Index of art in the Pacific Northwest (Issue 9, pp. 229, [8] leaves of plates). Published for the Henry Art Gallery by the University of Washington Press. p69. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ff26-030>

“Sometime after he was initiated, he started carving secret society masks. His father had been a carver but had died long before Chukwu was old enough to learn from him. All of his father’s masks had been destroyed in the fire during the British invasion of Afikpo in 1902. **Chukwu, then, combined his past experience at carving as an enna with what he learned from his older brother, who helped teach him. In fact, he had learned many of the primary techniques of mask carving (but not in wood or calabash) and of coloring when he was an enna.** Many boys at that time try their hand at the work. During that period he was unaware that his older brother, Oko, who was already initiated, was carving secret society masks, because members of the secret society do not reveal this fact to nonmembers, even in their own family. Similarly, his eldest brother did not know that Chukwu was making enna masks, for members of these enna groups are also secretive to outsiders about their activities. For the noninitiate, then, the stimulus to carve comes not from older persons—elders or professional carvers—but largely from the criticisms and

rewards of age-mates. Chukwu's carving skills were basically learned when he was a child. When away from home in the Enugu area and at Makurdi, he apparently did no carving, but acquired considerable skill in the use of Western-type carpenter's tools, which undoubtedly contributed to his later success as a carver."

1.3.3 Kpelle

Lancy, D. F. (1984). Work, play and learning in a Kpelle town. Xerox University Microfilms. p157-158. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-009>

p157-158

"Certain tasks are quite complex and require training which could be called an apprenticeship. These tasks include medicine making (Zo), leather-working, pottery, **blacksmithing**, and cloth weaving. Blacksmithing, at least, is learned during an apprenticeship. **Jawo-Gbala was apprenticed to his mother's brother. At first he only helped out on occasion by bringing wood for the forge and by operating the bellows. But even before this Jawo remembers sitting on a log at one end of the "shop" and watching his uncle work. At fourteen he began a formal apprenticeship which lasted three years.** His father "gave" him to his uncle, then, at the end of the apprenticeship, he "gave" him back to his parents. Jawo-Gbala first learned to make a knife blade, then a machete, later still he learned to carve wooden handles and to forge the hoe and the adze. These latter two require bending the hot iron which must be done with care to avoid breaking it. His uncle made few comments while Jawo-Gbala was working, only when he had finished a tool would he give a critique. He wasn't allowed to keep a piece until it was perfect, nor could he make a machete until he'd mastered the knife, a hoe until he'd mastered the machete and so on. When he did make a mistake, or did sloppy work, his teacher would beat and berate him and order him to destroy what he'd made. During the apprenticeship, he paid his uncle through his work. He would make tools for people who would, in turn, agree to work on Kuu on his uncle's farm. The apprenticeship terminated when Jawo-Gbala had mastered all the tools including these needed in the actual blacksmithing and he set up his own forge."

p177-178 (contextual information)

"If one had a lot of time (say two years) to spend observing young children at Neé-pele, one would, I believe, record instances of all the important adult activities of the society. Some

other examples of Neé-pele that I did observe:

Children on the farm make their own Kuu. Boys sing and swing their sticks (= machetes) at the weeds. Girls cook dirt (= rice) in snail shells (= pots) over sticks the boys have fetched for the “fire.”

A girl makes thread from pissava palm fibers (actually strips the fiber into threads rather than twisting it) which she winds onto a “bobbin.” This she gives to a boy who has made a “loom” from bamboo sticks. He lays two sticks on the ground, parallel to each other to represent heddles, and moves his feet up and down as if to raise and lower them. Leaves or paper represent the woven cloth and this is divided up among the “children” for their “clothes.”

Boys play at blacksmith. Sticks represent the tools, the anvil is a rock and the tongs are a piece of bamboo that has been partially split along its length. Different types and sizes of sticks represent different hammers. The finished machete (a flat piece of wood) is given to its “owner” who goes off to cut brush with it.

Many men from Gbarngasuakwelle have, at one time or another, gone down to the coast to work for a few months, for wages, in the Firestone rubber plantation. I observed insert_drive_file178 a seven year old boy with his younger brothers and sisters reenacting the homecoming scene of a worker returned from Firestone. He had made a carrier basket of palm thatch and proceeded to distribute to his “wife and children”: dirt (= salt), leaves (= clothes), sticks (= shoes), rope (= belt), gourds (= pots) and cowrie shells (= money).

Several boys aged eight to ten practice palm-tree climbing, to “cut palm nuts.” They play on a coconut tree which has a convenient curve in it not found in the oil-palm tree making it easier to climb the first few feet. Their Baling is a strip of bamboo which they loop around the trunk and hold at their sides.”

Lancy, D. F. (1996). Playing on the mother-ground: cultural routines for children’s development. In Culture and human development (pp. xii, 240). Guilford press. p89-90 <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-031>

p89-90

“**Make-believe play** can provide opportunities for children to acquire adult work habits and to rehearse social scenes. In many cases the transition from play work to real work is nearly seamless. However, some adult roles are just too complex to be acquired solely in the course of

Neé-pele—blacksmithing, for example.

Let us compare, briefly, the blacksmith at work in his forge with children doing a make-believe recreation of blacksmithing. In the realm of social relations, the blacksmith enters into a number of reciprocal relationships: between himself and a helper, who may also be an apprentice; between himself and a client, for whom he makes a tool and from whom he exacts an obligation to work on his farm; and and between his wife or wives who take care of many of his needs in return for his protection and maintenance. In the make-believe play we see these social relationships duplicated. **A boy of 8 or so is the blacksmith; two other boys of roughly the same age act as clients. A younger boy serves as helper, holding a “tool” for the “blacksmith” to “hammer” and fetching woodchips for the “fire.” Finally, two girls, younger than 10, prepare and bring “food” for the smith to eat. The anvil is a rock and the tongs are a piece of bamboo that has been partially split along its length. Different types and sizes of sticks represent different hammers. The finished machete (a flat piece of wood) is given to its “owner,” who goes off to cut brush with it.**

The “blacksmith” and his co-actors use the appropriate language in carrying out their make-believe. The older boy is addressed as “smith” or “old man,” the helper as “boy” or “son.” The girls as “wife.” The specialized blacksmith’s tools and paraphernalia are also referred to by their proper names.

The blacksmith possesses complex technical skills, the most important insert_drive_file90 of which is a basic understanding of metals and their reaction to various temperatures and stresses. **Clearly, these technical skills are not acquired to any appreciable degree during make-believe play. The blacksmith is also an important ritual figure and will be called on to assist in administering oaths. I found no evidence to indicate that children were learning the ideological aspects of being a blacksmith through their play.”**

p61 (contextual information)

“The blacksmith is the only skilled worker with a permanent workshop. This is an open-walled building with a sharply pitched thatched roof. Inside, is a forge that consists of two earthen mounds separated by a narrow trough in which a fire of woodchips is laid. An assistant works two leather bags which force air through bamboo tubes down and out a small opening at the base of the fire. A large and smaller rock serve as anvils and the blacksmith uses a variety of hammers,

punches, and tongs in his work. A customer brings both the iron and the wood to be made into the requested tool—a blacksmith does only bespoke work. **Formerly, iron, which is plentiful in the region, was smelted in local furnaces (Thomasson, 1987), but this practice has died out. Scrap iron is presently used.** Only old men knew the secrets of iron smelting and one had to be initiated into these secrets, as in the Poro.”

p154-155

“**Akewoli-la was 16 when he learned to weave a hammock;** now he makes about 10 a year which he gives to friends. When he was 16 he saw a friend making a hammock. The friend asked Akewoli-la to help him, but Akewoli-la protested that he did not know how. **The friend offered to teach him, at no charge. In a week, Akewoli-la went off to make his own.** It was very good and when he showed it to his teacher, the man jokingly accused him of knowing how to do it all along. **Now Akewoli-la is teaching his son Tondolo (age 21) how to make a hammock. He teaches by demonstration, showing his son where to place and how to tie the knots.**

Tondolo was anxious to make his own and did successfully with only a few minor corrections by his father. He is now working on his second. **Every evening he spends about 2 hours twisting the fibers into twine and nearly has enough, after 2 weeks, to make the hammock.** Other hammock makers reported that they first made miniature hammocks before making a full size one. **Apparently these individuals began learning it at an early age, say, 12.** I surmise that they did not have the patience to prepare enough twine for a full-size one and were anxious to get into the actual hammock construction.

Lave and Wenger (1991) identified a cultural routine that fits the above cases very well—and also extends to apprenticeship (Chapter 9). They call this legitimate peripheral participation. Essentially, they have broadened the earlier conceptualization of Vygotskian theory. For example, the claim that all learning is social was taken to mean that learners would always be assisted by those who are more skilled—a claim the Kpelle material fails to substantiate. But there need not be an expert present to see the influence exerted by society on the learner. **In each of the previous cases, we see individuals acquiring weaving skills to enhance their own social participation.** As Sua indicates, if a girl wants to “look nice,” to match the appearance of women, she must learn the skills to dress and decorate herself. In attempting to do so, she will be accorded the status of a “legitimate peripheral participant.” She may be supplied with materials insert_drive_file155 and someone competent may agree to model the skill and also to critique the fledgling product.

Miniature tools may be supplied. Overall, the society will treat these initial forays with respect—at worst, mild teasing is employed.

Westerman, D. H., & Schütze, F. (1921). The Kpelle: a negro tribe in Liberia. Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht; J. C. Hinrichs'sche Buchhandlung. p. 292B. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale.edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fd06-007>

“The technical teaching covers all skills: plaiting mats, weaving, basketry; making sieves, traps, fish nets, weirs; roofing, blacksmithing, hunting; carving dugouts, mortars and drums; making game boards. Other requirements are: proficiency in games, in drumming and dancing, learning songs and folktales. Certain equipment, such as blacksmith tools and game boards, is made only in the bush and may therefore not be sold. A large part of the training period is taken up with sex education:”to handle women, to find the secret parts of women” [cited in English]; how to make women well disposed toward one, how to force them to obey, how to get behind their wiles and dodges and keep oneself unscathed. The pupils of the chieftain class are initiated into tribal life, its structure, the regulations about inheritance and the election of a new chief, the ceremonial at the king’s court, the tribal traditions, relationships with neighboring tribes, warfare. The pupils in the class of religion are taught chiefly about medicine, magic and counter-magic, offerings, ordeals, sand-beating and other fortune-telling, about spirits, water-people and hill-people, forest devils, totem animals and plants and their treatment, about God. Naturally, everything worth knowing about the Poro Society itself and other secret societies is taught, especially the duties toward members and strangers. The pupils learn the secret characteristics and signs by which initiates recognize each other and can communicate unobtrusively, “and all kinds of tricks and rascality” [cited in English]. Instruction about sex is postponed until the later years when the boys reach maturity.”

p288 (contextual information)

“Entrance to the Poro school takes place between the ages of seven and fifteen, rarely later. The complete course lasts four years. During this time the pupils can learn everything that is taught in the Poro and reach the upper grades. Many, however, enter during the course and remain two or three years, one year, or even only a few months. Well-to-do people can shorten the training period of their children at will by means of gifts to the ‘namū. Private lessons with a zō can also replace part of the stay in the bush, if one can prove, according to certain criteria, that one is an accepted member. It may even happen that a young man takes part only in the entrance

ceremonies and is thus regarded as a member. This happens, for example, if a man, for some reason, has not attended the Poro, perhaps because he was away from home, but then wishes to get married and for this purpose must become a member.

A new Poro-bush is opened up at the beginning of the dry season, that is, from November on, when the field work of the year is completed. Entrance in the school and thus in the Society is nominally voluntary, but actually reluctant candidates are forced. Parents, with happy anticipation, wait for the time when their son can become a member of the Poro, and they gladly bear the trouble and costs involved, the long separation that is also painful for Negro mothers, and the dangers threatening their children in the bush. They will describe to their children, in harsh colors, the experiences awaiting them in the **bush**, the demands that will be made on them, and their privations, and will prepare them for dreadful things. At this time the 'namū with his retinue scours the villages and roads and where he finds an uninitiated one at the proper age he will take him along without further ado. His parents will later on find out only that the 'namū devoured him. If the 'namū happens to know that the women are absent, he will himself enter a hut and drag out potential shirkers. Often, the father, after arranging with the grand master, will send his boy on an errand and will let the unsuspecting one be caught along the way."

p37 (contextual information)

"In southern Kpelleland, instead of earthen bowls and plates, wooden ones are used of various shapes and sizes. Imported brass bowls and iron pots are also used everywhere; vessels bartered in the North are also common. Other kitchenware to be mentioned are wooden spoons, most of them very artistically carved; gourd shells used for eating and drinking, for storing flour, rice, pepper; the long-stemmed ones are also used as spoons and as enema syringes. Likewise carved of wood are combs, sandals with leather straps, trumpets in the shape of elephant tusks, sword sheaths covered with leather, large mortars for rice and tubers, small ones for snuff, drums, game boards, masks, and dugouts. **It is difficult to find out exactly how these objects are made because they are produced in the schools of the secret societies,³⁴ or at any rate the art is taught there and must therefore be kept secret.**"

1.3.4 Tallensi

Fortes, M. (1938). Social and psychological aspects of education in Taleland. In *Memorandum* (pp. 64, 4 plates). Oxford University Press for the International Institute of African Languages and

Cultures. p. 61. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=fe11-005>

“Boys, too, between the ages of 12 or 13 and 16 to 18 are at the stage of transition from childhood to young manhood. The imaginative play still prominent at the beginning of this period is given up by degrees and usually altogether abandoned when puberty is established. Like the adolescent girl, the boy of 16 or so finds his principal recreation in the dance at certain seasons. He, too, begins to frequent markets when time permits, for he is greatly preoccupied with the opposite sex, with courtship and flirtations and even transient love affairs, and there is no place like the market for pretty girls. An adolescent youth is already applying the deftness and skill acquired in juvenile play or in the arts and crafts of his boyhood to practical ends. **A 16-year-old takes an active part in building and thatching and in the manufacture of bow and arrows, or in the practice of crafts like leatherwork or the forging of tools and implements.**”

1.3.5 Yoruba

Lloyd, P. C. (1953). Craft organization on Yoruba towns. *Africa, Vol. 23*, 30–44. p. 33. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ff62-009>

“The training of a young craftsman differs little in principle from that of the farmer’s son. **A son is trained by his own father or, in the absence of his father, by his father’s brother or his own elder brother. It is not uncommon for a boy to go to his mother’s brother to learn the craft of his mother’s patri-lineage,** for it is felt that the boy will have some craft blood in his veins. In the old days it was unlikely that a craftsman would adopt and train a boy unrelated to him. **Today, however, some blacksmiths do take boys who are strangers to the lineage, and pay apprenticeship fees to the master.** No man would ask a fee for training his sister’s son. In most crafts there is work for a small boy—he runs errands, pumps the smith’s bellows, washes calabashes, sweeps the floor, winds cotton on to the reels. **By watching his father he learns and by the time he reaches the age of sixteen he will have enough knowledge to perform most tasks and needs only a little practice.** By Yoruba law a father is expected to set up his sons in life—he must provide land, tools, and the first wife. The farmer gives his son a small plot of land on which the boy may work in the evening for his own gain (the work being known as ???); the father retains his right to the boy’s labour during the earlier part of the day. Similarly the craftsman still expects his son to work for him; he will give him set tasks each day and only when

these are completed may the boy work for his own gain. The father must provide bride-wealth for his son but the boy should earn pocket-money to pay the contributions to his social club (???), for presents for his girl friends and for his own luxuries. Whereas a farmer retains the labour of a son until marriage, the young craftsman tends to leave his father at an earlier age. There is no ceremony to mark the freedom of the boy although his tools would probably be ritually consecrated. After his freedom the boy will, of course, continue to live in his father's corner of the huge rectangular compound and he will probably eat with his parents until his marriage. His freedom gives him little enhanced status in the lineage where age, marriage, and the birth of children are the important criteria."

2 Asia

2.1 East Asia

2.1.1 Okayama

Cornell, J. B. (1956). Matsunagi: the life and social organization of a Japanese mountain community. In *Two Japanese villages: Matsunagi, a Japanese mountain community* [by] John B. Cornell; *Kurusu, a Japanese agricultural community* [by] Robert J. Smith (pp. i–viii, xvii–xxiv, 113–232). University of Michigan Press. p.143-144. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=ab43-007>

"Only two of the craft trades common throughout the nation (exclusive of the distinctively "mountain" skills called kobiki) are represented among occupations in Matsunagi: insert_drive_file144 carpentry and cooperage. **Carpentry involves more skill and knowledge than any other craft trade and commands most respect in the buraku.** While the carpenters of Matsunagi operate independently, they can easily join forces because they share a highly stereotyped body of skills. The carpenter, like other craftsmen, prefers to work close to home, in his own buraku, if possible. Like the sawyer, he uses a number of tools peculiar to his special handicraft. Among the most useful of these are saws, which are cruder and lighter than ours; he lays more emphasis on planes and adzes rather than on hammers and screw devices. Though rude by the standards of American building, the carpenter's craft produces a carefully mortised structure having great durability. Carpentry is also an informal confraternity sharing work ritual as well as common skills.

As the most prominent of the local trades, carpentry is outstanding among the forms of ap-

prenticeship in the buraku. **A single master, if he is exceptionally skilled and experienced, may have as many as seven apprentices at once. But most masters have no more than two,** the eldest in point of service being called “older brother apprentice” and the others “younger brother apprentice.” Between these grows a bond of friendship like that between classmates or even between siblings, so that in later years they are inclined to turn to each other first for assistance in their trade. A carpenter wishing to apprentice his son is likely to ask his former “older brother apprentice” to take the youth. The apprentice spends much of his time with his master, even living as a member of the household during the seasons of greatest activity.”

2.2 North Asia

2.2.1 Yukaghir

Jochelson, W. (1975). The Yukaghir and the Yukaghirized Tungus. In American Museum of Natural History, New York. Memoirs; The Jesup North Pacific Expedition. Publications: Vol. v. 13 (pp. xvi, 469 , [15] leaves of plates). AMS Press. p425. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale.edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=rv03-001>

“The Yukaghir blacksmith, Shalugin, who lived on the Yassachnaya River, was looked upon by his tribesmen with great respect, and his art was regarded as a divine gift. Not everyone is fitted to learn** the blacksmith’s trade. Among the Yukaghir, Yakut, Tungus and other Siberian natives, the status of the blacksmith is on a level with that of the shaman. **Shalugin was always worried because his elder son seemed unable to learn his father’s vocation. “My people will be lost,” he once said, to me, “if my younger son should not be clever enough to become a smith.** Who will forge knives, axes and other tools for them, and who will repair their guns and lances?” Shalugin worked for the welfare of his clan, remuneration played quite a secondary role. He was satisfied with any reward and was not disturbed when a customer gave nothing. On the other hand, when he had to buy iron or steel blocks from traders or the government store he was assisted by his people. No one would withhold from him a fox or some squirrel skins to be used in exchange.”

2.3 South Asia

2.3.1 Bengali

Klass, M. (1978). From field to factory: community structure and industrialization in West Bengal. Institute for the Study of Human Issues. p209-210. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=aw69-007>

“And yet, having said all this, some Carpenter men go on to express a measure of sadness. Work in the factory is certainly well-paying, they note, but it is also dull and unsatisfying. An operator insert_drive_file210 performs a series of rote movements in any factory task—the same ones over and over, days without end. Whether one stamps out the bits of chain link, or assembles them, or assembles the fork in the frame, there is really very little satisfaction to be obtained after the first few days. It cannot compare with the pleasure of repairing a broken cart, or the deep satisfaction a man could feel when building a new one, working in the cool morning hours in the yard in front of his house with the children watching and neighbors walking by, joking and gossiping. **There was true pleasure, a Carpenter will say, in working with the tools he inherited from his father and in teaching his sons the ancient trade. Now the boys are not interested in learning to become carpenters, for they—like their fathers—hope they will go to work in the factory. And, after a hard day’s work, who has time to teach the boys?** In many Carpenter homes, the tools are rusty and neglected. And yet, say the men who have made all the foregoing remarks, it cannot be denied that the factory wages are excellent, and no one in his right mind would choose the chancy and inadequate income of a village carpenter over the factory wages...”

2.4 Southeast Asia

2.4.1 Ifugao

Lambrecht, E (1958). Ifugaw weaving. Folklore Studies, Vol. 17, 1-53 , plates. p1. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=oa19-023>

“**Weaving, from cotton to cloth, is the exclusive task of women.** They weave for themselves and the members of their family, but only occasionally for selling purposes. **Girls learn how to weave by helping their mother or elder sister, for example in putting up the warp (see infra), and by actual practice under the latters’ supervision: most of them become quite skilled within a short period of time.** The weaving tools, i.e., the loom sticks, the spindle, the apparatus for

fluffing, skeining and winding, are, of course, made by the men.”

2.4.2 Semai

Dentan, R. K. (1978). Notes on childhood in nonviolent context: the Semai case. In learning non-aggression (pp. 94–143). Oxford University Press. p.126. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=an06-016>

“Acquiring skills. Besides being coercion that might make the child sick, **training is unnecessary because “our children learn by themselves”** (see “Enculturation” above). **Children tag along after adults, especially parents or grandparents, imitating their activities in ways that shade imperceptibly into helping out. Seeing the child’s interest or in response to its initiative, the adult may show insert_drive_file127 it how to do something better or may make a small version of the appropriate tool. When no adults are around, children often play at adult activities by themselves.**”

2.4.3 Vietnamese

Hickey, G. C. (1964). Village in Vietnam. Yale University Press. P165-166. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=am11-173>

“**The usual pattern is for carpenters and implement makers to pass on to their sons the skills of the trade** as well as the tools—saws of various sizes, chisels, planes, bow-powered drills, hatchets, squares, metal rulers, plumb lines, pliers, and hammers. **One exception was a carpenter in Ap Dinh-B who, because his son lacked propensity for the trade, took one of his brother’s insert_drive_file166 sons as an apprentice, later accepting him as a full partner. Some young men complained that there is a tendency to accept only kin as apprentices,** and they cited the example of a young laborer who was unable to become an apprentice in the village, so he learned carpentry working in a Tan An lumberyard.”

3 Middle America and the Caribbean

3.1 Central Mexico

3.1.1 Nahua

Lewis, O. (1951). Life in a Mexican village: Tepoztlán restudied. University of Illinois Press. p.98.
<https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nu46-002>

“The division of labor according to sexes is clearly delineated. Men are expected to support their families by doing all the work in the fields; by caring for the cattle, horses, oxen, and mules; by making charcoal and cutting wood; and by carrying on all the large transactions in buying and selling. In addition, **most of the specialized occupations, such as carpentry, masonry, and shoemaking, are done by men. An important function of the father of the family is to train his sons in the work of men.** When a Tepoztecan man is at home, his activities consist of providing the household with wood and water, making or repairing furniture or work tools, making repairs on the house, and picking fruit. Men also shell corn when shelling has to be done on a large scale. Politics and local government, as well as the organization and management of religious and secular fiestas, are also in the hands of the men.”

3.1.2 Zapotec

Cook, S. (1979). Teitipac and its metateros: and economic anthropological study of production and exchange in a peasant artisan community in the valley of Oaxaca, Mexico. University Microfilms. p.183-191. <https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nu44-028>

p189-191

“c. Enculturation. The task of the present section is to ascertain the function of kinship in the process of metatero enculturation in the Teitipac villages. **In San Sebastian the finishing tasks in metate and mano production are taught in the residence lot; all preliminary and intermediate production tasks are taught and learned on location in the quarries.** In San Juan, on the other hand, where the quarries are close to the village and more accessible than those in San Sebastian, metate size blocks of stone (trozos) are often carted from the quarry to the metatero’s residence lot in the village. Thus, the residence lot is, in many instances, the San Juan metatero’s workshop.

The apprentice in both villages is taught by instruction from more skilled metateros — the instruction assuming the form of tips and pointers volunteered periodically rather than systematically programmed training. Much of what any apprentice learns is on his own initiative through trial and error or imitation. The San Juaneros, unlike the San Sebastianos, often congregate on street corners in groups of five or six to ‘finish’ (Iabrar) their metate products. In this informal street corner setting a spirit of friendly insert_drive_file190 competition prevails which is conducive to the development or perfection of production techniques. As one San Juanero describes this situation:

And after I was able to make metates, we would meet on the corner to finish them. Well, there they taught me how to do a better job of finishing them — Guillermo Cruz, who’s now dead, was my maestro. There we competed with each other — with our other companions — to see who could finish the best product. Well, of course, with patience we turned out well made products.

Only one of 24 metatero informants in San Sebastian claims to have had no teacher; eleven state that their father was the chief agent in their occupational enculturation; three learned from affines and one from an elder brother. The remainder were taught by non-relatives, two maestros being responsible for training four of them. Of 15 San Juan informants, 7 were taught by their fathers, two by mother’s brothers, one by his elder brothers, and another by his Fa-SisHu. Four of these informants were taught by non-relatives as apprentices in quarries owned by their maestro-patrones. In sum, then, kinship ties between teacher and apprentice are basic to the process of metatero enculturation.

What are the principal aspects of this process? **During his period of apprenticeship the apprentice is economically dependent on his maestro-patrón; he helps the latter in those quarry tasks which require a minimum of skill but much effort (e.g., carrying waste stone out of the quarry) and is rewarded by an occasional piece of stone, access to his maestro’s tools, and with advice or informal instruction.** The insert_drive_file191 only source of remuneration for the apprentice is the revenue from the sale of his output — which is usually small in quantity and poor in quality. Inevitably, then, for a period of several weeks or months the pecuniary reward for the apprentice’s efforts is minimal and he must rely on patience and perseverance (and deferral of gratification) to get him through his apprenticeship.”

p183-184 (contextual information)

“The informal organizational structure of the Teitipac metateros consists of three functionally differentiated and ranked sets of status whose internal relationships are schematized in Figure 13. The maestros (masters or teachers) or dirigentes (directors) are capable of organizing and directing quarry operations, of instructing, and are the most skilled insert_drive_file184 quarrymen and metate makers. The mozos metateros are those members of the occupation who lack the knowledge and experience to organize and direct quarry operations but are competent makers of metates and manos. **Apprentices, who are mostly boys and young men under the age of 25, can neither organize and direct quarry operations nor make metates. They are teaching themselves by trial and error and by imitation, or are being taught by more skilled workmen, to make metate products.**

Since it is very difficult for a neophyte to learn to make metates on his own, he must undergo a period of ‘on the job’ training. Consequently, the informal status hierarchy represented in Figure 13, looked at diachronically, indicates developmental stages in the metatero’s career. This is not to imply that all apprentices become full-fledged metateros nor that all metateros become maestros but, rather, that those who do attain higher ranks passed through the lower ones.”

p185-188 (contextual information)

“As the highest status in metatero organization, that of maestro merits further discussion. Table 8 contains a tabulation of the traits most emphasized in 15 metatero definitions of maestro. Below is a sampling of some of these definitions:

1. He’s a maestro because he knows how to do it. He knows how to make metates and manos. Also he can make ‘carved design’ (calado y dibujado) metates. He knows the work from the beginning — the cutting of stone in the quarry. Not everyone does that well. That’s a maestro.
2. The maestro has the quality of saying how one is going to blast and cut stone in the quarry. He can even say — as if he were divining the stone — how many metates a block of stone will yield. That’s a maestro; he is a director. The worker who doesn’t know how to cut stone asks advice from the maestro in his quarry. The maestro tells him: ‘That stone should be cut like this’.
3. The one who turns out the best work is a maestro. In every sense he knows stone. He can appraise stone in the quarry. Just by looking at stone in the quarry he can estimate how

many metates will come out of it.

It is clear from these statements and from the table that there is a broad consensus among the metateros as to what constitutes a maestro — the 3 salient traits being skill in appraising and cutting stone, skill in the manufacture of metates, and ability to organize and direct quarry operations. The term maestro, then, connotes ‘master’ — a status whose artisan occupant excels in his understanding and application of the strategy and tactics of his craft.

- b. Recruitment. **The typical metatero career is initiated between the ages of 10 and 20 years, with the mean starting age of a sample of 35 informants being 17 1/2 years.** Recruitment into the occupation tends to be through ascription. Of 30 active metateros censused only four reported having no consanguineal relatives in ascending generations who were metateros. Of the remaining 26, 16 reported a three-generational patrilineal continuity in the occupation (i.e., from FaFa or FaFaBr to Fa or FaBr to EGO). Direct three-generational patrilineal succession (FaFa to Fa to EGO) occurred in 14 of these cases, with direct two-generational patrilineal succession (Fa to So) occurring in the other two. A total of 13 of these informants have metateros in both their matri- and parti-lines in at least one ascending generation; however, occupational succession has a definite patrilineal bias.

Only four of these 30 informants do not have consanguineal relatives of the first or second degree who are active metateros. All of the others have either first or second degree consanguines (in most cases both) who are active members of the occupation. Moreover, all of the informants have affines who are practicing metateros. Some idea of the complexity of the consanguineal and affinal networks among the metateros can be provided by tracing these relationships for one metatero as is done in Table 9.

Certain families in the Teitipac villages are known as metatero families. For example, it is often said of such families: “Son del oficio desde sus abuelos y bisabuelos” (They have been in the occupation since their grandfathers and great-grandfathers). Such reputations are, indeed, supported by the genealogical facts. For example, the Cruz family in San Sebastian is known as a metatero family. The genealogy of the direct male descendants of Jose Cruz, the progenitor, is represented in Figure 14.

As it turns out, all 14 of the direct male descendants of Jose were or are metateros. Since Jose was himself a metatero his occupation has been transmitted through a total of 3 descending

generations. Between the Cruz and three other patriline in San Sebastian society, the metatero population has a deep and extensive kinship base.”

p192-193 (contextual information)

“There are variations in the recruitment and enculturation process as can be inferred from the following account by a San Juanero of how he became a metatero:

From the beginning I was a peasant. But in 1933 one of my compadres, Efren Carranza, introduced me to the occupation. He said to me: ‘Compadre, if you want to learn I will teach you; give me a peso to buy you a handpick so that you can begin to make manos’. I gave him the peso and with it he bought me a little hammer — second hand — I remember. And with that second hand hammer he went to Jose the blacksmith who made two picks from it. Until this day I remember that Jose charged me \$1.50 for those two picks. And the day that he finished making those tools, I went to pick them up very contentedly and, then, went to see an old metatero named Manuel Cruz. Manuel sold me some pieces of stone, some unfinished manos, for 5 each; and on that first day I finished a mano. I returned to my house very pleased with myself because I had gone to the house of Sr. Cruz so that he could teach me. However, I was somewhat pensive as well because, on that first day, a little piece of stone got into my eye; that night I saw insert_drive_file193 little lights and I said to myself: ‘What will I do to protect my sight’? But that week I finished 6 manos and we went to Oaxaca to sell them. There I bought myself a pair of dark glasses which I’ve worn ever since to protect my eyes.

Little by little I began to make 1 mano daily, then, 3 ever 2 days. Afterwards I was making 2 daily. That was enough because in those days a laborer earned only 25 from sunrise to sunset — a hard day’s work; I was able to go to the fields to bring alfalfa for my animals and then by 6 in the afternoon finish 2 manos; that gave me an income of 50 daily.

I began to make metates without a maestro; I observed how others did the work and then I made some wooden models — tracing the form from an old metate. Then, I began to cut stones using a ruler and a pencil to mark the cuts. I started using a little chisel — about 15 centimeters long — and slowly but surely I perfected my finishing techniques. In 1939 I began to make specially decorated metates (carved in bas relief) — those that sell for 200 pesos each now and then were worth only 8 pesos.

In San Juan one observes more young boys working in the metate industry than in San Sebastian.

Many young San Juaneros (some as young as 8–10 years) wander through the quarries picking up discarded pieces of stone (“pepenando la piedra”) unsuited for making full-size metate products but which are suitable for making small metates and manos which are sold as toys. Many of these boys have made agreements with village traders for the sale of their products. By the time they reach their teens, many of these San Juan youths are skilled stone cutters and have only to gain experience in the quarries to qualify as full-fledged metateros.”

4 North America

4.1 Arctic and Subarctic

4.1.1 Kaska

Honigmann, J. J., & Bennett, W. C. (1949). Culture and ethos of Kaska society. In Yale University publications in anthropology (Issue 40, pp. 366, 12 plates). Yale University Press. p.185-186.
<https://ehrafworldcultures-yale-edu.proxy.library.emory.edu/document?id=nd12-001>

“Education. **Most education for living is received by the child in the course of performing routine activities. Such education is unformalized and undirected.** Our characterization above of the training of dogs reflects some of the features of the child’s education. Instruction and direction are rarely explicit. “Do this,” is the formula, and the child is left with the task of working out the details of an activity for himself. If the young girl is asked to make a fire and tries to light large pieces of wood without first splitting kindling, the task will be taken over by an adult. The child may then observe the correct sequences for the completion of the activity, but few people trouble to drill these into the learner. **Sometimes generalized instructions are furnished to children who, in carrying these out, often become confused.** Thus we observed one fourteen year old girl make tea by putting the leaves into cold water. Nobody referred to the muddy quality of the beverage. The same kind of teaching was used with the ethnographer. **Activities were illustrated but never explained in detail, the exposition of principles being ignored.** On the second day of a journey with dog team and toboggan, the handling of the vehicle was entrusted to the ethnographer without a word of instruction regarding the technique of managing the dogs. Meanwhile the guide walked on ahead, rapidly breaking trail, so that when the traces fouled and the dogs rebelled, he had to retrace almost an eighth of a mile. **Another observation that is worthwhile making so far as education is concerned, deals with the relatively narrow range**

of stimulation available to children, particularly in winter, when youngsters lacking toys are confined to small cabins and rarely interact with parents.

The girl's education is derived from her household duties and begins quite early. From the age of six or seven, she hauls water and packs wood. A few years later she learns to cut and sew moccasins, often practicing with scraps of moosehide; tends the rabbit snares; cuts wood; washes clothes, and helps with simple cooking—all by following the examples of her mother or older sisters and with a minimum of verbal instruction. A young girl may at first rebel at economic chores and seek to shirk them, but by the time she is nine or ten years old the rebellion has almost totally disappeared and she is only anxious to complete her duties quickly so as to have free time available. **Boys' education begins somewhat later, at the age of eight. Now they begin to accompany fathers or older brothers on short fishing, hunting, and trapping trips. The boy learns masculine skills by observing older men prepare snow-shoe frames, hew lumber, or manufacture implements, vehicles, buildings, and tools.** While the boy assists older men in these activities, by collecting firewood and handling tools, his real economic contribution begins much later than the girl's. Not until he is near puberty, does the boy begin to manufacture apparatus on his own or go out to hunt large game with an agemate.

As early as the age of three, a child begins to try using snowshoes. Such learning is insert_drive_file186 gradual, but by six the child is already able to cover ten or more miles with these travel aids. Children begin to feed themselves at about three years of age."